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B

Respondents' alternative argument—namely, that they can establish standing based on the measures that they have undertaken to avoid § 1881a-authorized surveillance—fares no better. Respondents assert that they are suffering ongoing injuries that are fairly traceable to § 1881a because the risk of surveillance under § 1881a requires them to take costly and burdensome measures to protect the confidentiality of their communications. Respondents claim, for instance, that the threat of surveillance sometimes compels them to avoid certain e-mail and phone conversations, to “tal[k] in generalities rather than specifics,” or to travel so that they can have in-person conversations. Tr. of Oral Arg. 38; App. to Pet. for Cert. 338a, 345a, 367a, 400a.⁶ The Second Circuit panel concluded that, because respondents are already suffering such ongoing injuries, the likelihood of interception under § 1881a is relevant only to the question whether respondents' ongoing injuries are “fairly traceable” to § 1881a. See 638 F. 3d, at 133–134; 667 F. 3d, at 180 (opinion of Raggi, J.). Analyzing the “fairly traceable” element of standing under a relaxed reasonableness standard, see 638 F. 3d, at 133–134, the Second Circuit then held that “plaintiffs

requirement, respondents fall short of even that standard, in light of the attenuated chain of inferences necessary to find harm here. See *supra*, at 411–414. In addition, plaintiffs bear the burden of pleading and proving concrete facts showing that the defendant's actual action has caused the substantial risk of harm. Plaintiffs cannot rely on speculation about “the unfettered choices made by independent actors not before the courts.” *Defenders of Wildlife*, 504 U. S., at 562.

⁶For all the focus on respondents' supposed need to travel abroad in light of potential § 1881a surveillance, respondents cite only one specific instance of travel: an attorney's trip to New York City to meet with other lawyers. See App. to Pet. for Cert. 352a. This domestic travel had but a tenuous connection to § 1881a, because § 1881a-authorized acquisitions “may not intentionally target any person known at the time of acquisition to be located in the United States.” § 1881a(b)(1); see also 667 F. 3d 163, 202 (CA2 2011) (Jacobs, C. J., dissenting from denial of rehearing en banc); *id.*, at 185 (opinion of Raggi, J. (same)).

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have established that they suffered *present* injuries in fact—economic and professional harms—stemming from a reasonable fear of *future* harmful government conduct,” *id.*, at 138.

The Second Circuit’s analysis improperly allowed respondents to establish standing by asserting that they suffer present costs and burdens that are based on a fear of surveillance, so long as that fear is not “fanciful, paranoid, or otherwise unreasonable.” See *id.*, at 134. This improperly waters down the fundamental requirements of Article III. Respondents’ contention that they have standing because they incurred certain costs as a reasonable reaction to a risk of harm is unavailing—because the harm respondents seek to avoid is not certainly impending. In other words, respondents cannot manufacture standing merely by inflicting harm on themselves based on their fears of hypothetical future harm that is not certainly impending. See *Pennsylvania v. New Jersey*, 426 U.S. 660, 664 (1976) (*per curiam*); *National Family Planning & Reproductive Health Assn., Inc. v. Gonzales*, 468 F.3d 826, 831 (CA DC 2006). Any ongoing injuries that respondents are suffering are not fairly traceable to § 1881a.

If the law were otherwise, an enterprising plaintiff would be able to secure a lower standard for Article III standing simply by making an expenditure based on a nonparanoid fear. As Judge Raggi accurately noted, under the Second Circuit panel’s reasoning, respondents could, “for the price of a plane ticket, . . . transform their standing burden from one requiring a showing of actual or imminent . . . interception to one requiring a showing that their subjective fear of such interception is not fanciful, irrational, or clearly unreasonable.” 667 F.3d, at 180 (internal quotation marks omitted). Thus, allowing respondents to bring this action based on costs they incurred in response to a speculative threat would be tantamount to accepting a repackaged version of respondents’ first failed theory of standing. See *ACLU*, 493 F.3d, at 656–657 (opinion of Batchelder, J.).

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Another reason that respondents' present injuries are not fairly traceable to §1881a is that even before §1881a was enacted, they had a similar incentive to engage in many of the countermeasures that they are now taking. See *id.*, at 668–670. For instance, respondent Scott McKay's declaration describes—and the dissent heavily relies on—McKay's “knowledge” that thousands of communications involving one of his clients were monitored in the past. App. to Pet. for Cert. 370a; *post*, at 425–426, 429. But this surveillance was conducted pursuant to FISA authority that predated §1881a. See Brief for Petitioners 32, n. 11; *Al-Kidd v. Gonzales*, No. 05–cv–93, 2008 WL 5123009 (D Idaho, Dec. 4, 2008). Thus, because the Government was allegedly conducting surveillance of McKay's client before Congress enacted §1881a, it is difficult to see how the safeguards that McKay now claims to have implemented can be traced to §1881a.

Because respondents do not face a threat of certainly impending interception under §1881a, the costs that they have incurred to avoid surveillance are simply the product of their fear of surveillance,⁷ and our decision in *Laird* makes it clear that such a fear is insufficient to create standing. See 408 U. S., at 10–15. The plaintiffs in *Laird* argued that their exercise of First Amendment rights was being “chilled by the mere existence, without more, of [the Army's] investigative and data-gathering activity.” *Id.*, at 10. While acknowledging that prior cases had held that constitutional violations may arise from the chilling effect of “regulations that fall short of a direct prohibition against the exercise of

⁷ Although respondents' alternative theory of standing rests primarily on choices that *they* have made based on their subjective fear of surveillance, respondents also assert that third parties might be disinclined to speak with them due to a fear of surveillance. See App. to Pet. for Cert. 372a–373a, 352a–353a. To the extent that such assertions are based on anything other than conjecture, see *Defenders of Wildlife*, 504 U. S., at 560, they do not establish injury that is fairly traceable to §1881a, because they are based on third parties' subjective fear of surveillance, see *Laird v. Tatum*, 408 U. S. 1, 10–14 (1972).

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First Amendment rights,” the Court declared that none of those cases involved a “chilling effect aris[ing] merely from the individual’s knowledge that a governmental agency was engaged in certain activities or from the individual’s concomitant fear that, armed with the fruits of those activities, the agency might in the future take some *other* and additional action detrimental to that individual.” *Id.*, at 11. Because “[a]llegations of a subjective ‘chill’ are not an adequate substitute for a claim of specific present objective harm or a threat of specific future harm,” *id.*, at 13–14, the plaintiffs in *Laird*—and respondents here—lack standing. See *ibid.*; *ACLU, supra*, at 661–662 (opinion of Batchelder, J.) (holding that plaintiffs lacked standing because they “allege[d] only a subjective apprehension” of alleged NSA surveillance and “a personal (self-imposed) unwillingness to communicate”); *United Presbyterian Church*, 738 F. 2d, at 1378 (holding that plaintiffs lacked standing to challenge the legality of an Executive Order relating to surveillance because “the ‘chilling effect’ which is produced by their fear of being subjected to illegal surveillance and which deters them from conducting constitutionally protected activities, is foreclosed as a basis for standing” by *Laird*).

For the reasons discussed above, respondents’ self-inflicted injuries are not fairly traceable to the Government’s purported activities under § 1881a, and their subjective fear of surveillance does not give rise to standing.

IV

A

Respondents incorrectly maintain that “[t]he kinds of injuries incurred here—injuries incurred because of [respondents’] reasonable efforts to avoid greater injuries that are otherwise likely to flow from the conduct they challenge—are the same kinds of injuries that this Court held to support standing in cases such as” *Laidlaw, Meese v. Keene*, 481 U. S.

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465 (1987), and *Monsanto*. Brief for Respondents 24. As an initial matter, none of these cases holds or even suggests that plaintiffs can establish standing simply by claiming that they experienced a “chilling effect” that resulted from a governmental policy that does not regulate, constrain, or compel any action on their part. Moreover, each of these cases was very different from the present case.

In *Laidlaw*, plaintiffs’ standing was based on “the proposition that a company’s continuous and pervasive illegal discharges of pollutants into a river would cause nearby residents to curtail their recreational use of that waterway and would subject them to other economic and aesthetic harms.” 528 U. S., at 184. Because the unlawful discharges of pollutants were “concededly ongoing,” the only issue was whether “nearby residents”—who were members of the organizational plaintiffs—acted reasonably in refraining from using the polluted area. *Id.*, at 183–184. *Laidlaw* is therefore quite unlike the present case, in which it is not “concede[d]” that respondents would be subject to unlawful surveillance but for their decision to take preventive measures. See *ACLU*, 493 F. 3d, at 686 (opinion of Batchelder, J.) (distinguishing *Laidlaw* on this ground); *id.*, at 689–690 (Gibbons, J., concurring) (same); 667 F. 3d, at 182–183 (opinion of Raggi, J.) (same). *Laidlaw* would resemble this case only if (1) it were undisputed that the Government was using §1881a-authorized surveillance to acquire respondents’ communications and (2) the sole dispute concerned the reasonableness of respondents’ preventive measures.

In *Keene*, the plaintiff challenged the constitutionality of the Government’s decision to label three films as “political propaganda.” 481 U. S., at 467. The Court held that the plaintiff, who was an attorney and a state legislator, had standing because he demonstrated, through “detailed affidavits,” that he “could not exhibit the films without incurring a risk of injury to his reputation and of an impairment of his

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political career.” *Id.*, at 467, 473–475. Unlike the present case, *Keene* involved “more than a ‘subjective chill’” based on speculation about potential governmental action; the plaintiff in that case was unquestionably regulated by the relevant statute, and the films that he wished to exhibit had already been labeled as “political propaganda.” See *ibid.*; *ACLU*, 493 F. 3d, at 663–664 (opinion of Batchelder, J.); *id.*, at 691 (Gibbons, J., concurring).

Monsanto, on which respondents also rely, is likewise inapposite. In *Monsanto*, conventional alfalfa farmers had standing to seek injunctive relief because the agency’s decision to deregulate a variety of genetically engineered alfalfa gave rise to a “significant risk of gene flow to non-genetically-engineered varieties of alfalfa.” 561 U.S., at 155. The standing analysis in that case hinged on evidence that genetically engineered alfalfa “‘seed fields [we]re currently being planted in all the major alfalfa seed production areas’”; the bees that pollinate alfalfa “‘have a range of at least two to ten miles’”; and the alfalfa seed farms were concentrated in an area well within the bees’ pollination range. *Id.*, at 154, and n. 3. Unlike the conventional alfalfa farmers in *Monsanto*, however, respondents in the present case present no concrete evidence to substantiate their fears, but instead rest on mere conjecture about possible governmental actions.

B

Respondents also suggest that they should be held to have standing because otherwise the constitutionality of § 1881a could not be challenged. It would be wrong, they maintain, to “insulate the government’s surveillance activities from meaningful judicial review.” Brief for Respondents 60. Respondents’ suggestion is both legally and factually incorrect. First, “[t]he assumption that if respondents have no standing to sue, no one would have standing, is not a reason to find standing.” *Valley Forge Christian College*, 454 U.S., at 489; *Schlesinger*, 418 U.S., at 227; see also *Richard-*

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son, 418 U. S., at 179; *Raines*, 521 U. S., at 835 (Souter, J., joined by GINSBURG, J., concurring in judgment).

Second, our holding today by no means insulates § 1881a from judicial review. As described above, Congress created a comprehensive scheme in which the FISC evaluates the Government's certifications, targeting procedures, and minimization procedures—including assessing whether the targeting and minimization procedures comport with the Fourth Amendment. §§ 1881a(a), (c)(1), (i)(2), (i)(3). Any dissatisfaction that respondents may have about the FISC's rulings—or the congressional delineation of that court's role—is irrelevant to our standing analysis.

Additionally, if the Government intends to use or disclose information obtained or derived from a § 1881a acquisition in judicial or administrative proceedings, it must provide advance notice of its intent, and the affected person may challenge the lawfulness of the acquisition. §§ 1806(c), (e), 1881e(a) (2006 ed. and Supp. V).⁸ Thus, if the Government were to prosecute one of respondent-attorney's foreign clients using § 1881a-authorized surveillance, the Government would be required to make a disclosure. Although the foreign client might not have a viable Fourth Amendment claim, see, e. g., *United States v. Verdugo-Urquidez*, 494 U. S. 259, 261 (1990), it is possible that the monitoring of the target's conversations with his or her attorney would provide grounds for a claim of standing on the part of the attorney. Such an attorney would certainly have a stronger evidentiary basis for establishing standing than do respondents in the present case. In such a situation, unlike in the pres-

⁸The possibility of judicial review in this context is not farfetched. In *United States v. Damrah*, 412 F. 3d 618 (CA6 2005), for example, the Government made a pretrial disclosure that it intended to use FISA evidence in a prosecution; the defendant (unsuccessfully) moved to suppress the FISA evidence, even though he had not been the *target* of the surveillance; and the Sixth Circuit ultimately held that FISA's procedures are consistent with the Fourth Amendment. See *id.*, at 622, 623, 625.